- Which of the following is the complementizer in the given sentence?
- I heard that those children want a puppy. (that)
- A ---------- is a word used to introduce a complement clause including subordinate conjunctions, relative pronouns, and relative adverbs. (complementizer)
- Select the appropriate label for the given phrase. ' A beautiful flower' (determiner)
- Which of the following is the direct object in the given sentence? Ali gave his mother a present.(present)
- A ---------- language is a language whose grammar permits an independent clause to lack an explicit subject.(null subject)
- Which of the following is the indirect object in the given sentence? I returned the books to the library.(library)
- Which of the following is an action verb?(eat,run,play)
- Which of the following is the direct object in the given sentence?I took her with me for a walk.(her)
- Which of the following is a complementizer phrase? (if...)

Q. Prepositional phrases. Two examples.

Two examples:

1. The cupcake *with sprinkles* is yours.
2. We climbed *up the hill.*
3. The rabbits hopped *through the garden.*

In these examples, with sprinkles, up the hill and through the garden are prepositional phrases.

Q. Transitive verbs. Two examples.

Two examples:

1. She *left* (transitive verb) the keys (direct object) on the table.
2. My father *took* (transitive verb) me (direct object) to the movies for my birthday.

Q. Verb phrases. Two examples.

Two examples:

1. *As the cat watched,* the two puppies fought over a bone.
2. *Walking on the ice,* she slipped and fell.
3. Finally, we can afford *to buy a new house.*

In these examples, *as the cat watched, walking on the ice* and *to buy a new house* are verb phrases.

Q. Tag questions. Two examples.

Positive statement + Negative Tag

1. It is very warm, ***isn't it?***
2. It will be dark soon, ***won't it?***
3. You live near here, ***don't you?***
4. The children can swim, ***can't they?***

Negative statement + Positive Tag

1. You aren't a teacher, ***are you?***
2. They weren't late, ***were they?***
3. You shouldn't be so busy, ***should you?***
4. You haven't been here all week, ***have you?***

Q. Types of phrases.

1. **Noun Phrase:** A group of words in a sentence that acts like a noun is called a "*Noun Phrase".*
2. **Verb Phrase:** A group of words consisting of one main verb and one or more helping verbs is called a "*Verb Phrase".*
3. **Adjective Phrase:** A group of words that describes a noun in a sentence is known as an "*Adjective Phrase".*
4. **Prepositional Phrase:** A group of words consisting of a preposition, followed by a noun, verb, a pronoun or a noun phrase is called a "*Prepositional Phrase".*
5. ***Adverb Phrase:*** A group of words that describes a verb, adjective or other adverb in a sentence.

Q. Four types of determiner.

Types of Determiners:

1. Articles:

There are three articles in English language: a, an, the. The articles "a" and "an" are used when we need to clarify the noun as indefinite and singular. The article "a" comes before nouns beginning with a constant sound, while the article "an" comes before nouns beginning with a vowel sound. The article "the" is used when we need to clarify the noun as definite and unique.

Example of Articles:

- We saw the car again today.
- I am going to read a newspaper.
- She has an umbrella.

2. Demonstratives:

The category of words which is used to clarify the distance of something or some person from the speaker is called demonstratives.

Use of Demonstratives in a Sentence:

Demonstratives can function as adjectives and pronouns in a sentence.

These include: *That, These, This, Those.*

"That" is used when a singular noun is not very close to the speaker. "This" is used when a singular noun is precisely in front and close to the speaker. "Those" is used when plural nouns are not very close to the speaker. "These" is used when plural nouns are precisely in front and close to the speaker.

Examples of Demonstratives:

- That is the place I want to go to.
- These books are fun to read.

3. Possessives:

*The words that come to modify a noun to indicate possession towards some person or something are called p*ossessives.

These include: your, our, my, his, hers, its, their etc

Examples of Possessives:

- I am doing my assignment.
- This dress is hers.

4. Quantifiers

The category of indefinite determiners which is used to indicate the quantity of the noun without stating the precise number is called the Quantifiers.

These include: many, much, plenty, enough, several, some, few, little etc.

Examples of quantifiers:

- I took out some vegetables from the fridge.
- She has several friends at school who work part-time.
- He does not have many friends.

Q. Define "Do support".

Do-support:

Do-support (or do-insertion), in English grammar, is the use of the auxiliary verb do, including it's inflected forms does and did, to form negated clauses and questions as well as other constructions in which subject-auxiliary inversion is required. Do-support is not used when there is already an auxiliary or copular verb present or with non-finite verb forms (infinitives and participles).

Do-support appears to accommodate a number of varying grammatical constructions:

- Question formation,
- The appearance of the negation *not*, and
- negative inversion.

Define subject question.

Subject Question:

Sometimes we want to ask about the **subject.** We *don't know* the person or thing who performed the action, and we want to find out. This type of question is called a **subject question,** and subject questions do NOT use the auxiliary verbs **do, does,** and **did.**

How to form subject questions:

- Who / What + verb in simple present or simple past + object ?

Examples of subject questions in the simple present:

- **Who** wants some fruit juice?
  We want some fruit juice.
- **What** causes cancer?
  Smoking causes cancer.

Examples of subject questions in the simple past:

- **Who** made a sandwich?
  Sara made a sandwich.
- **What** damaged your house?
  The earthquake damaged my house.

Q. Null subject.

A null subject is the absence (or apparent absence) of a subject in a sentence. In most cases, such truncated sentences have an implied or suppressed subject that can be determined from the context. The null subject phenomenon is called subject drop. Italian is a null subject language whereas in English sentence structure a subject is normally essential, therefore English is a non-null-subject language.

Q. Define prepositional phrase.

A prepositional phrase is a group of words that lacks either a verb of a subject, and that functions as a unified part of speech. It normally consists of a preposition and a noun or a preposition and a pronoun.

Q. Differentiate between verb phrase and prepositional phrase.

Verb phrase:

A group of words consisting of one main verb and one or more helping verbs is called a "*Verb Phrase"*.

Propositional phrase:

A group of words consisting of a preposition, followed by a noun, verb, a pronoun or a noun phrase is called a "*Prepositional Phrase".*

Q. Underline agent. **(In exams you only need to underline the agents in the given sentences. I'm writing definition and examples just for clear understanding.)**

Agent:

Agent is the semantic role of a person or thing who is the doer of an event. Where as subject is determined syntactically, primarily through word order, the agent is determined through it's relationship to the action expressed by the verb.

Examples:

- ***The boy*** ran down the street.
- He was chased by ***the dog.***
- The little girl was bitten by ***the dog.***
- ***Jack*** kicked the ball.

Q. Underline direct object. **(In exams you only need to underline the direct objects in the given sentences. I'm writing definition and examples just for clear understanding.)**

Direct object:

A direct object is a noun, pronoun or group of words acting as a noun that receives the direct action of the transitive verb.

In order to find the direct object, there are two questions you must ask:

#1: Does the sentence have an action verb?

- The sentence must have an action verb in order to have a direct object.

#2 who or what received the action of the verb?

- This answer will give you the direct object.

Examples:

- Sara broke the ***vase***.

- He built a ***sandcastle*** on the beach.
- I sent my mother ***some emails.*** ***Or*** I sent ***some emails*** to my mother .
- She wore ***gloves*** and a ***jacket***. (THIS IS AN EXAMPLE OF COMPOUND DIRECT OBJECTS.)
- She makes a ***sandwich.***
- Jack has given us ***his new address.*** ***Or*** Jack has given ***his new address*** to us.

Q. Write about auxiliary verbs.

Auxiliary verbs or helping verbs at functional or grammatical meaning to the clause in which they appear, such as to express tense, aspect, modality, voice, emphasis, etc. Auxiliary verbs usually accompany a main

Types of auxiliary verbs:

There are two main types of auxiliary verbs; primary auxiliaries and modal auxiliaries.

Primarily auxiliary verbs:

Primary auxiliaries are those which help to form tenses, questions, negative sentences, passive voice etc. Their form changes according to the number and person of the subject

The primary auxiliaries are **be, have** and **do.** The other forms of **be** are: (is, am, are, was, were, been and being). The other forms of **have** are: (has, had, having). The other forms of **do** are: (does, did, done and doing).

Modal auxiliary verbs:

Modal auxiliary are those that show the mode or manner of the actions expressed by the principal verb.

Example:

- She ***could*** be hungry.

Here 'could' shows the possibility of her being hungry.

- You **ought to** eat more.

The idea of what 'you' should do is expressed through 'ought'.

Some examples of modal auxiliaries are: (can, could, may, might, will, would, shall, should, ought to, dare, need and used to).

Modal auxiliaries do not change according to the number of person of the subject

Examples:

- I **ought to** eat a balanced diet.
- You **ought to** eat a balanced diet.
- She **ought to** eat a balanced diet.

Q. Underline Active and Passive Sentences:

Active Sentences:

A sentence is written in active voice when the subject of the sentence performs the action in the sentence.

Examples:

1. The hunter killed the lion.
2. Someone has cleaned the windows.
3. Someone had broken the windows.

4. He chased the bus.
5. The children are baking a cake.

Passive Sentences:

A sentence is written in passive voice when the subject of the sentence has an action done to it by someone or something else.

Examples:

1. The lion was killed by the hunter.
2. The windows have been cleaned by someone.
3. The windows had been broken. (The by-phrase is entirely optional. It could be omitted.)
4. The bus was chased by him.
5. A cake is being baked by the children.

Q. Relative Clauses.

A relative clause contains essential or extra information about people or things. They are usually divided into two types – defining relative clauses and non-defining relative clauses.

Defining relative clauses:

- Contain essential information about people or things.
- Relative pronounced: who, which, that, whose, can be noted omitted if they are not subject of the sentence.
- **When** refers to time, "that" can be used or can be **omitted.**
- **Where"** refers to place, it never can be omitted or place by "that".
- **Whose** refers to possession.
- **Who/ that** refer to people.
- **Which/ that** refer to objects.

Examples:

1. It was in 2017 ***when*** she lost her mother.
2. Japan is a country ***where*** earthquakes are very common.
3. He's the boy ***whose*** mother saved many lives.
4. I talked to a man ***who/that*** survived the earthquake.
5. The horse ***which*** Kim was riding is very friendly.

Non-defining relative clauses

Non-defining relative clauses are more often used in written English than in spoken English. You can tell that a clause is non-defining because it is separated by commas at each end of the clause. Non-defining relative clauses can use most relative pronouns (which, whose etc,) but they CAN'T use 'that' and the relative pronoun can never be omitted.

Examples:

1. My grandfather, ***who is 87,*** goes swimming every day.

'who is 87' is a non-defining relative clause. It adds extra information to the sentence. If we take the clause out of the sentence, the sentence still has the same meaning.

2. The film, ***which stars Tom Carter,*** is released on Friday.
3. The car, ***which can reach speeds of over 300km/ph,*** costs over $500,000.

Q. Exclamatory Clauses.

In English grammar, an **exclamatory** sentence is a type of main **clause** that expresses strong feelings by making an **exclamation**. ... An **exclamatory** sentence is also called an exclamative or an exclamative **clause.**

- **Exclamation** with "How": How fast he runs!
- **Exclamation** with "What": What a beautiful house!
- **Exclamation** with "so": The birthday cake was so good!
- **Exclamation** with "such": You're such a liar!
- **Exclamation** conveys strong emotion: I hate you!

Q. Echo Questions.

Echo questions:

An echo question is a type of direct question that repeats part or all of something that someone else has just said to you. Usually we use an echo question because we have not heard what they said or because we are surprised by what the speaker has told us.

Examples:

A: "I went to Iceland to visit the volcanos"

B: "You went where? To visit what?"

A: "My new Iphone cost me £800."

B: "Your new Iphone cost you how much?"

A: "I loved all the optical illusions at Camera Obscura"

B: "You loved all the what at Camera Obsucra?"

A: "What do you want"

B: "What do I want? I just want a cup of tea."

When you use an echo question it is spoken with a rising intonation and also with an emphasis on the question word (what, how, who, where etc.). Watch the video for another explanation about echo questions.

OR

ECHO QUESTIONS (Short questions used in replies)

- We often reply to statements by making short questions, containing just an auxiliary verb and a personal pronoun.

- It was an awful party.

- Was it?

- Yes, there was nobody there I know, and …

- These 'reply questions' do not ask for information. They express interest, concern, surprise, anger, or other reactions, depending on the intonation.
- Their most common use is just to show that we are listening.

- We had a lovely holiday.

- Did you?

- I've got a headache.

- Have you, dear? I'll get you an aspirin.

  - In reply questions, we use the same auxiliary verb that was used in the sentence we are answering. If there was no auxiliary verb, we use 'do'.

- He smokes too much.

- Does he?

- Yes, he tried to give it up but …

  - We use negative echo questions in reply to negative statements.

- It wasn´t a very good film.

- Wasn´t it? That's a pity.

Q. Interrogative Sentences.

Interrogative Sentences:

Sentences used to ask questions are **interrogative** sentences. This kind of sentence usually ends with a note of interrogation (?) instead of a period (.).

- If the main verb in a sentence is in simple present or simple past, the question is formed using the relevant form of the verb, ***do*** (person and tense) and the infinitive of the other verb.

Examples:

She has two dogs. (Statement)

Does she have to dogs? (Question)

They walk to school. (Statement)

Do they walk to school? (Question)

- A statement can be changed into a question by placing the modal verb before the subject.

Examples:

We should hurry. (Statement)

Should we hurry? (Question)

I could have done that. (Statement)

Could I have done that? (Question)

- If the statement has the helping verb ***to be,*** the order of the subject and the verb is reversed to make into a question.

Examples:

He is waiting outside. (Statement)

Is he waiting outside? (Question)

- Questions are also formed by using question words, e g., ***Wh*** words.

Question words such as: who, whose, what, which, where, when as how introduce a question. Such questions require full answers not short yes/no answers. These questions are written as: question word+verb+subject

Examples:

How old are you?

I am twelve.

What are you doing?

I am trying on your shirt.

- Yes/ No questions only have 'yes' or 'no' for answers.

Examples:

- Are you going home?

Yes, I am. Or No, I am not.

- Are Ali and Raza going out?

Yes, they are. Or No, they are not.

Q. Explain Predicate.

A sentence has two parts: the subject and the predicate. The subject is what the sentence is about, and the predicate is a comment about the subject. The predicate is the part of a sentence (or clause) that tells us what the subject does or is. To put it another way, the predicate is everything that is not the subject. At the heart of the predicate is a verb. In addition to the verb, a predicate can contain direct objects, indirect objects, and various kinds of phrases.

(The man from the shop) ***(is a monster.)***

(Subject) ***(Predicate)***

(He) ***(stole my bike last week.)***

(Subj.) ***(Predicate)***

Examples of Predicates of Sentences

Here are some examples of predicates. In each example, the predicate of the sentence is in bold.

- Elvis **lives.**
- The telegram **contained exciting news.**
- The girls in our office **are experienced instructors.**
- They **are experienced instructors, who acquired their experience in France.**
- The patient **has been examined by Dr MacDonald.**
- The tramp **was shaving himself.**
- The exam **is at the end of next term.**
- That painting Sue **does not like.**
- After breakfast the boys **wandered out into the playground.**

Grammatical function of Predicate:

We have seen that the Subject NP and the VP together make up a sentence: **S-NP-VP**

The VP 'predicates something' of the Subject; its function is 'predicative'. Since the function of VP is that of predicating, we shall call it the Predicate (Pred) of the sentence. The constituents inside the VP may also have some kind of predicative function.

Q. Define the term syntax.

Syntax:

- Knowing a language includes the ability to construct phrases and sentences out of morphemes and words. The part of the grammar that represents a speaker's knowledge of these structures and their formation is called **syntax**.
- In other words, **syntax** is the study of sentence patterns of language.
- The aim of this study is to show you what **syntactic structure** is and what the rules that determine syntactic structure are like.

Q. What is Syntax.

In linguistics, syntax is the set of rules, principles, and processes that govern the structure of sentences in a given language, usually including word order. The term syntax is also used to refer to the study of such principles and processes. The goal of many syntacticians is to discover the syntactic rules common to all languages. 'Syntax' also means 'sentence construction': how words group together to make phrases and sentences. Some people use the term grammar means syntax, Most linguists follow the more recent practice whereby the grammar of a language includes all of its organizing principles: information about the sound system, about the form of words, how we adjust language according to context, and so on; syntax is only one part of this grammar. The term 'syntax' is also used to mean the study of the syntactic properties of languages. 'stylistics' to mean the study of literary style. In this sense, it's used in the same way as we use The scope of syntax study includes the classification of words, the order of words in phrases and sentences, the structure of phrases and sentences, and the different sentence constructions that languages use. One basic description of a language's syntax is the sequence in which the subject (S), verb (V), and object (O) usually appear in sentences.

Over 85% of languages place the subject first , either in the sequence SVO or the sequence SOV. The other possible sequences are VSO, VOS, OVS, and OSV, the last three of which are rare. In most generative theories of syntax, these surface differences arise from a more complex clausal phrase structure, and each order may be compatible with multiple derivations.

Usually, we think of syntax as "word order." However, syntax is also achieved in some languages such as Latin by inflectional case endings. A sentence could make no sense and still be correct from the syntax point of view as long as words are in their appropriate spots and agree with each other.

Q. Syntax in languages. Or two common types of syntax used in all languages.

Speakers manipulate sentences in all sorts of ways because they're trying to convey different meanings. Syntax allows speakers to express all the meanings that they need to put across. In the simplest cases, this might mean altering the basic word order of a sentence, to emphasize or downplay a particular phrase, or to ask a question, or else grouping words together in different ways to modify the meaning. A preliminary idea in languages demonstrates that languages really do have syntactic structure. Each of the word orders in the following sentences is attested among the world's languages, though some are much more common than others. The three most common basic word orders in languages other than English are those of (a,b and (c).

a. Kim drank the tea.

b. Kim the tea drank. (Japanese has this basic word order.)

c. Drank Kim the tea. (Welsh has this basic word order.)

d. Drank the tea Kim. (Malagasy, spoken in Madagascar, has this basic order)

e. The tea drank Kim.

f. The tea Kim drank. (Two word orders in (e and f) are the rarest basic word orders in the languages of the, found in the Carib language family of the Amazon basin. For example, Hixkaryana)

Possible to determine the basic, neutral word order in a language, But the flexibility or rigidity of the basic word order differs widely among the world's languages.

• English has a fixed basic word order,

• Russian a very flexible word order,

• Japanese allows many different orders.

Q. Innateness hypothesis.

- It is relatively easy to show that humans are innately predisposed to acquire language.
- Chomsky's notion of a rich innate schema contrasted strongly with the point of view popularly held earlier in the century that children are born with 'blank sheets 'as far as language is concerned.
- He claimed that for language acquisition to be possible, a child must be endowed with a 'rich internal structure'.
- All children with all level of knowledge can acquire language.
- Children can acquire language effortlessly.
- Children can acquire language in a relatively short period of time.
- Language is a complex system.
- A child does not have to be finally taught to acquire language.
- Children discover the system of language from an unsystematic and small amount of data.
- Langue acquisition requires very little imitation
- Reinforcement (reward) has a very small role in acquisition.
- Langue acquisition is a very active process. Children say things that they have never heard from adults.
- Therefore, Chomsky claims that language acquisition is greatly dependent upon linguistic faculty which he terms ***Language Acquisition Decide (LAD)*** an innate mechanism our process that allows children to develop language skills or ***Universal Grammar,*** around which all languages are built.

Q. Differentiate between competence and performance.

Competence:

- Competence is a person's underlying (subconscious) linguistics ability to create and understand sentences, including sentences they have never heard before.
- It's a person's acquaintance with a set of grammatical rules and is different from actual linguistics activities.
- Linguistics competence includes components such as phonetics, phonology, syntax, semantics and morphology.
- Competence enables native speaker to recognize ambiguous sentences it accept even apparently meaningless sentences as syntactically correct (and even making some sense).
- Even if you've never heard these before, you know which one is "English" and which one isn't.

Performance:

- Performance is the real world linguistic output
- May accurately reflect competence, but it also may include speech errors
- Performance may be flawed because if memory limitations, distractions, shifts of attention and interest, and errors (random or characteristic) or other physiological factors.
- Represents only a small sample of possible utterances.

Q. Parametric variation or Parametric sentences.

Parameters: The language faculty incorporates a set of universal principles which guide the child in acquiring a grammar are all aspects of the grammar of languages universal?

If this were so, all natural languages would have the same grammar and there would be no grammatical learning involved in language acquisition. No need for children to learn anything about the grammar.

Only lexical learning and their idiosyncratic linguistic properties, e.g. whether a given item has an irregular plural or past tense form needed to be learnt. Some universal principles do determine the broad outlines of the grammar of natural languages. Some language-particular aspects of grammar which children have to learn as part of the task of acquiring their native language.

Thus, language acquisition involves not only lexical learning but also some grammatical learning.

Grammatical learning will be limited to those parameters of grammar which vary from one language to another called parametrized aspects of grammar. The obvious way to determine just what aspects of the grammar of their native language children have to learn is to examine the range of parametric variation found in the grammars of different (adult) natural languages.

Contrast between the English and its Italian counterpart:

- Maria thinks that ∗ (they) speak French
- (b) Maria pensa che parlano francese
- 'Maria thinks that speak French'

Since the verb parlano speak has no overt subject, it must have a null subject which can be thought of as a silent or invisible counterpart of the pronoun they which appears in the corresponding English sentence. This null subject is conventionally designated as pro, so that Italian sentence has the following structure:

- Maria pensa che pro parlano francese
- 'Maria thinks that pro speak French,' where pro is a null subject pronoun.

We can describe the differences between the two types of language by saying that Italian is a null-subject language, whereas English is a non-null-subject language. A more familiar aspect of grammar is parametrised relates to word order.

One type of word-order variation can be illustrated in relation to the following contrast between English and Chinese questions. Thus, another parameter of variation between languages is the Wh-Parameter –a parameter which determines whether wh-expressions are fronted or not. The language faculty allows only a binary set of possibilities –namely that a given kind of structure in a given language is either consistently head-first or consistently head-last.

Generalising, it seems possible that all grammatical variation between languages can be characterized in terms of a set of parameters, and that for each parameter, the language faculty specifies binary choice of possible values for the parameter.

Q. Three types of head movements.

Q. Names of three words used in the term "forming-subject question"

Q. T-c, c-t and v-t movement.